

Definitions in Analysis I by Terence Tao

Li Thon Hong

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Contents

1	Introduction	2
2	Starting at the beginning: the natural numbers	3
2.1	The Peano axioms	3
2.2	Addition	3
2.3	Multiplication	5
3	Set theory	6
3.1	Fundamentals	6
3.2	Russell's paradox	8
3.3	Functions	8
3.4	Images and inverse images	9

Remark. This document follows the third edition of *Analysis I*.

1 Introduction

No definitions found in this chapter.

2 Starting at the beginning: the natural numbers

2.1 The Peano axioms

Axiom 2.1. 0 is a natural number.

Axiom 2.2. If n is a natural number, then $n++$ is also a natural number.

Definition 2.1.3. We define 1 to be the number $0++$, 2 to be the number $(0++)++$, 3 to be the number $((0++)++)++$, etc. In other words, $1 := 0++$, $2 := 1++$, $3 := 2++$, etc.

Axiom 2.3. 0 is not the successor of any natural number, i.e., we have $n++ \neq 0$ for every natural number n .

Axiom 2.4. Different natural numbers must have different successors; i.e. if n, m are natural numbers and $n \neq m$, then $n++ \neq m++$. Equivalently, if $n++ = m++$, then we must have $n = m$.

Axiom 2.5 (Principle of mathematical induction). Let $P(n)$ be any property pertaining to a natural number n . Suppose that $P(0)$ is true, and suppose that whenever $P(n)$ is true, $P(n++)$ is also true. Then $P(n)$ is true for every natural number n .

2.2 Addition

Definition 2.2.1 (Addition of natural numbers). Let m be a natural number. To add 0 to m , we define $0 + m := m$. Now, suppose inductively that we have defined how to add n to m . Then, we can add $n++$ to m by defining $(n++) + m := (n + m)++$.

Lemma 2.2.2. For any natural number n , $n + 0 = n$.

Lemma 2.2.3. For any natural numbers n and m , $n + (m++) = (n + m)++$.

Proposition 2.2.4 (Addition is commutative). For any natural numbers n and m , $n + m = m + n$.

Proposition 2.2.5 (Addition is associative). For any natural numbers a, b, c , we have $(a + b) + c = a + (b + c)$.

Proposition 2.2.6 (Cancellation law). Let a, b, c be natural numbers such that $a + b = a + c$. Then we have $b = c$.

Definition 2.2.7 (Positive natural numbers). A natural number b is said to be *positive* iff it is not equal to 0.

Proposition 2.2.8. If a is positive and b is a natural number, then $a + b$ is positive.

Corollary 2.2.9. If a and b are natural numbers such that $a + b = 0$, then $a = 0$ and $b = 0$.

Lemma 2.2.10. Let a be a positive number. Then there exists exactly one natural number b such that $b++ = a$.

Definition 2.2.11 (Ordering of the natural numbers). Let n and m be natural numbers. We say that n is greater than or equal to m , and write $n \geq m$ or $m \leq n$, iff we have $n = m + a$ for some natural number a . We say that n is *strictly greater than* m , and write $n > m$ or $m < n$, iff $n \geq m$ and $n \neq m$.

Proposition 2.2.12 (Basic properties of order for natural numbers). Let a, b, c be natural numbers. Then

- (a) *Reflexivity:* $a \geq a$.
- (b) *Transitivity:* If $a \geq b$ and $b \geq c$, then $a \geq c$.
- (c) *Anti-symmetry:* If $a \geq b$ and $b \geq a$, then $a = b$.
- (d) *Preservation of order:* $a \geq b$ if and only if $a + c \geq b + c$.
- (e) $a < b$ if and only if $a++ < b$.
- (f) $a < b$ if and only if $b = a + d$ for some positive number d .

Proposition 2.2.13 (Trichotomy of order for natural number). Let a and b be natural numbers. Then exactly one of the following statements is true: $a < b$, $a = b$, or $a > b$.

Proposition 2.2.14 (Strong principle of induction). Let m_0 be a natural number, and let $P(m)$ be a property pertaining to an arbitrary natural number m . Suppose that for each $m \geq m_0$, we have the following implication: if $P(m')$ is true for all natural numbers $m_0 \leq m' < m$, then $P(m)$ is also true. Then we can conclude that $P(m)$ is true for all natural numbers $m \geq m_0$.

2.3 Multiplication

Definition 2.3.1 (Multiplication of natural numbers). Let m be a natural number. To multiply 0 to m , we define $0 \times m := 0$. Now, suppose inductively that we have defined how to multiply n to m . Then, we can multiply $n++$ to m by defining $(n++) \times m := (n \times m) + m$.

Lemma 2.3.2 (Multiplication is commutative). Let n, m be natural numbers. Then $n \times m = m \times n$.

Lemma 2.3.3 (Positive natural numbers have no zero divisors). Let n, m be natural numbers. Then $n \times m = 0$ if and only if at least one of n, m is equal to 0. In particular, if n and m are both positive, then nm is also positive.

Proposition 2.3.4 (Distributive law). For any natural numbers a, b, c , we have $a(b + c) = ab + ac$ and $(b + c)a = ba + ca$.

Proposition 2.3.5 (Multiplication is associative). For any natural numbers a, b, c , we have $(a \times b) \times c = a \times (b \times c)$.

Proposition 2.3.6 (Multiplication preserves order). If a, b are natural numbers such that $a < b$, and c is positive, then $ac < bc$.

Corollary 2.3.7 (Cancellation law). Let a, b, c be natural numbers such that $ac = bc$ and c is nonzero. Then $a = b$.

Proposition 2.3.9 (Euclidean algorithm). Let n be a natural number, and let q be a positive number. Then there exist natural numbers m, r such that $0 \leq r < q$ and $n = mq + r$.

Definition 2.3.11 (Exponentiation for natural numbers). Let m be a natural number. To raise m to the power 0, we define $m^0 := 1$; in particular, we define $0^0 := 1$. Now suppose recursively that m^n has been defined for some natural number n , then we define $m^{n++} := m^n \times m$.

3 Set theory

3.1 Fundamentals

Axiom 3.1 (Sets are objects). If A is a set, then A is also an object. In particular, given two sets A and B , it is meaningful to ask whether A is also an element of B .

Definition 3.1.4 (Equality of sets). Two sets A and B are *equal*, $A = B$, iff every element of A is an element of B and vice versa. To put it another way, $A = B$ if and only if every element x of A belongs also to B , and every element y of B belongs also to A .

Axiom 3.2 (Empty set). There exists a set $\emptyset$, known as the *empty set*, which contains no elements, i.e., for every object x we have $x \notin \emptyset$.

Lemma 3.1.6 (Single choice). Let A be a non-empty set. Then there exists an object x such that $x \in A$.

Axiom 3.3 (Singleton sets and pair sets). If a is an object, then there exists a set $\{a\}$ whose only element is a , i.e., for every object y , we have $y \in \{a\}$ if and only if $y = a$; we refer to $\{a\}$ as the singleton set whose element is a . Furthermore, if a and b are objects, then there exists a set $\{a, b\}$ whose only elements are a and b ; i.e., for every object y , we have $y \in \{a, b\}$ if and only if $y = a$ or $y = b$; we refer to this set as the pair set formed by a and b .

Axiom 3.4 (Pairwise union). Given any two sets A , B , there exists a set $A \cup B$, called the *union* $A \cup B$ of A and B , whose elements consist of all the elements which belong to A , or B or both. In other words, for any object x ,

$$x \in A \cup B \iff (x \in A \text{ or } x \in B).$$

Lemma 3.1.13. If a and b are objects, then $\{a, b\} = \{a\} \cup \{b\}$. If A , B , C are sets, then the union operation is commutative (i.e., $A \cup B = B \cup A$) and associative (i.e., $(A \cup B) \cup C = A \cup (B \cup C)$). Also, we have $A \cup A = A \cup \emptyset = \emptyset \cup A = A$.

Definition 3.1.15 (Subsets). Let A , B be sets. We say that A is a *subset* of B , denoted $A \subseteq B$, iff every element of A is also an element of B , i.e.

$$\text{For any object } x, \quad x \in A \implies x \in B.$$

We say that A is a *proper subset* of B , denoted $A \subsetneq B$, if $A \subseteq B$ and $A \neq B$.

Proposition 3.1.18 (Sets are partially ordered by set inclusion). Let A, B, C be sets. If $A \subseteq B$ and $B \subseteq C$, then $A \subseteq C$. If $A \subseteq B$ and $B \subseteq A$, then $A = B$. Finally, if $A \subsetneq B$ and $B \subsetneq C$, then $A \subsetneq C$.

Axiom 3.5 (Axiom of specification/axiom of specification). Let A be a set, and for each $x \in A$, let $P(x)$ be a property pertaining to x (i.e., $P(x)$ is either a true statement or a false statement). Then there exists a set, called $\{x \in A : P(x) \text{ is true}\}$ (or simply $\{x \in A : P(x)\}$ for short), whose elements are precisely the elements x in A for which $P(x)$ is true. In other words, for any object y ,

$$y \in \{x \in A : P(x) \text{ is true}\} \iff (y \in A \text{ and } P(y) \text{ is true}).$$

Definition 3.1.23 (Intersections). The *intersection* $S_1 \cap S_2$ of two sets is defined to be the set

$$S_1 \cap S_2 := \{x \in S_1 : x \in S_2\}.$$

Definition 3.1.27 (Difference set). Given two sets A and B , we define the set $A - B$ or $A \setminus B$ to be the set A with any elements of B removed:

$$A \setminus B := \{x \in A : x \notin B\}.$$

Proposition 3.1.28 (Sets form a boolean algebra). Let A, B, C be sets, and let X be a set containing A, B, C as subsets.

- (a) (Minimal element) We have $A \cup \emptyset = A$ and $A \cap \emptyset = \emptyset$.
- (b) (Maximal element) We have $A \cup X = X$ and $A \cap X = A$.
- (c) (Identity) We have $A \cap A = A$ and $A \cup A = A$.
- (d) (Commutativity) We have $A \cup B = B \cup A$ and $A \cap B = B \cap A$.
- (e) (Associativity) We have $(A \cup B) \cup C = A \cup (B \cup C)$ and $(A \cap B) \cap C = A \cap (B \cap C)$.
- (f) (Distributivity) We have $A \cap (B \cup C) = (A \cap B) \cup (A \cap C)$ and $A \cup (B \cap C) = (A \cup B) \cap (A \cup C)$.
- (g) (Partition) We have $A \cup (X \setminus A) = X$ and $A \cap (X \setminus A) = \emptyset$.
- (h) (De Morgan Laws) We have $X \setminus (A \cup B) = (X \setminus A) \cap (X \setminus B)$ and $X \setminus (A \cap B) = (X \setminus A) \cup (X \setminus B)$.

Axiom 3.6 (Replacement). Let A be a set. For any object $x \in A$ and any object y , suppose we have a statement $P(x, y)$ pertaining to x and y , such that for each $x \in A$ there is at most one y for which $P(x, y)$ is true. Then there exists a set $\{y : P(x, y) \text{ is true for some } x \in A\}$, such that for any object z ,

$$z \in \{y : P(x, y) \text{ is true for some } x \in A\} \iff P(x, z) \text{ is true for some } x \in A.$$

Axiom 3.7 (Infinity). There exists a set $\mathbb{N}$, whose elements are called natural numbers, as well as an object 0 in $\mathbb{N}$, and an object $n++$ assigned to every natural number $n \in \mathbb{N}$, such that the Peano axioms (Axioms 2.1 - 2.5) hold.

3.2 Russell's paradox

Axiom 3.8 (Universal specification). (*Dangerous!*) Suppose for every object x we have a property $P(x)$ pertaining to x (so that for every x , $P(x)$ is either a true statement or a false statement). Then there exists a set $\{x : P(x) \text{ is true}\}$ such that for every object y ,

$$y \in \{x : P(x) \text{ is true}\} \iff P(y) \text{ is true}.$$

Axiom 3.9 (Regularity). If A is a non-empty set, then there is at least one element x of A which is either not a set, or is disjoint from A .

3.3 Functions

Definition 3.3.1 (Functions). Let X, Y be sets, and let $P(x, y)$ be a property pertaining to an object $x \in X$ and an object $y \in Y$, such that for every $x \in X$, there is exactly one $y \in Y$ for which $P(x, y)$ is true (this is sometimes known as the *vertical line test*). Then we define the *function* $f : X \rightarrow Y$ *defined by* P *on the domain* X *and range* Y to be the object which, given any input $x \in X$, assigns an output $f(x) \in Y$, defined to be the unique object $f(x)$ for which $P(x, f(x))$ is true. Thus, for any $x \in X$ and $y \in Y$,

$$y = f(x) \iff P(x, y) \text{ is true}.$$

Definition 3.3.7 (Equality of functions). Two functions $f : X \rightarrow Y, g : X \rightarrow Y$ with the same domain and range are said to be equal, $f = g$, if and only if $f(x) = g(x)$

for all $x \in X$. (If $f(x)$ and $g(x)$ agree for some values of x , but not others, then we do not consider f and g to be equal.)

Definition 3.3.10 (Composition). Let $f : X \rightarrow Y$ and $g : Y \rightarrow Z$ be two functions, such that the range of f is the same set as the domain of g . We then define the composition $g \circ f : X \rightarrow Z$ of the two functions g and f to be the function defined explicitly by the formula

$$(g \circ f)(x) := g(f(x)).$$

If the range of f does not match the domain of g , we leave the composition $g \circ f$ undefined.

Lemma 3.1.12 (Composition is associative). Let $f : Z \rightarrow W$, $g : Y \rightarrow Z$, and $h : X \rightarrow Y$ be functions. Then $f \circ (g \circ h) = (f \circ g) \circ h$.

Definition 3.3.14 (One-to-one function). A function f is *one-to-one* (or *injective*) if different elements map to different elements:

$$x \neq x' \implies f(x) \neq f(x').$$

Equivalently, a function is one-to-one if

$$f(x) = f(x') \implies x = x'.$$

Definition 3.3.17 (Onto functions). A function f is *onto* (or *surjective*) if $f(X) = Y$, i.e., every element in Y comes from applying f to some element in X :

For every $y \in Y$, there exists $x \in X$ such that $f(x) = y$.

Definition 3.3.20 (Bijective functions). Functions $f : X \rightarrow Y$ which are both one-to-one and onto are also called *bijective* or *invertible*.

3.4 Images and inverse images

Definition 3.4.1 (Images of sets). If $f : X \rightarrow Y$ is a function from X to Y , and S is a set in X , we define $f(S)$ to be the set

$$f(S) := \{f(x) : x \in S\};$$

this set is a subset of Y , and is sometimes called the *image* of S under the map f . In other words,

$$x \in S \implies f(x) \in f(S),$$

and

$$y \in f(S) \iff y = f(x) \text{ for some } x \in S.$$

Definition 3.4.4 (Inverse images). If U is a subset of Y , we define the set $f^{-1}(U)$ to be the set

$$f^{-1}(U) := \{x \in X : f(x) \in U\}.$$

In other words, $f^{-1}(U)$ consists of all the elements of X which map into U :

$$f(x) \in U \iff x \in f^{-1}(U).$$

We call $f^{-1}(U)$ the inverse image of U .

Axiom 3.10 (Power set axiom). Let X and Y be sets. Then there exists a set, denoted Y^X , which consists of all the functions from X to Y , thus

$$f \in Y^X \iff (f \text{ is a function with domain } X \text{ and range } Y).$$

Lemma 3.4.9. Let X be a set. Then the set

$$\{Y : Y \text{ is a subset of } X\}$$

is a set. This set is known as the *power set* of X and is denoted 2^X .

Axiom 3.11 (Union). Let A be a set, all of whose elements are themselves sets. Then there exists a set $\bigcup A$ whose elements are precisely those objects which are elements of the elements of A , thus for all objects x

$$x \in \bigcup A \iff (x \in S \text{ for some } S \in A).$$

If one has some set I , and for every element $\alpha \in I$ we have some set A_α , then we can form the union set $\bigcup_{\alpha \in I} A_\alpha$ by defining

$$\bigcup_{\alpha \in I} A_\alpha := \bigcup \{A_\alpha : \alpha \in I\}.$$

More generally, for any objects y ,

$$y \in \bigcup_{\alpha \in I} A_\alpha \iff (y \in A_\alpha \text{ for some } \alpha \in I).$$

We often refer to I as an *index set*, and the elements α of this index set as *labels*; the sets A_α are then called a *family of sets*, and are indexed by the labels $\alpha \in I$.

Similarly, we can form intersections of families of sets. Given any non-empty set I , and given an assignment of a set A_α to each $\alpha \in I$, we can define the intersection $\bigcap_{\alpha \in I} A_\alpha$ by first choosing some element β of I (which we can do since I is non-empty), and setting

$$\bigcap_{\alpha \in I} A_\alpha := \{x \in A_\beta : x \in A_\alpha \text{ for all } \alpha \in I\}.$$

Then, for any object y ,

$$y \in \bigcap_{\alpha \in I} A_\alpha \iff (y \in A_\alpha \text{ for all } \alpha \in I).$$